

Relativistic Trajectories, Quantum Phase, and the Freezing Illusion: An Analysis of Near-Light-Speed Electron Motion

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Introduction

The study of **relativistic trajectories** of charged particles and their quantum implications constitutes a fertile meeting point between relativity theory and quantum mechanics. In particular, idealized trajectories where an electron travels along a ring divided into infinitesimal arcs — locally approaching the speed of light (c) — raise conceptual and calculational questions concerning the nature of **proper time**, the accumulation of **quantum phase**, and the apparent “freezing” observed by external reference frames. The present work addresses these issues in an integrated manner, demonstrating that convergent series for the proper time and the quantum phase can be constructed even when the observer’s coordinate time diverges, and exploring the physical and observational consequences of this contrast.

Methodologically, we adopt an explicit decomposition of the trajectory into arcs of decreasing length and introduce a velocity profile that tends to c via controlled parameters (ε_n). This allows us to analyze the convergence of the proper time sums ($\sum \Delta\tau_n$) and the world action ($\sum S_n$), as well as the relationship between these sums and the accumulated quantum phase ($\Phi = -\frac{mc^2}{\hbar} \sum \Delta\tau_n$). The analysis combines classical relativistic arguments — including time dilation and redshift effects on the reception of electromagnetic signals — with considerations from the path integral formalism and the theory of divergent sum regularization (notably techniques inspired by Ramanujan and zeta-type summations), to provide a coherent framework linking formal calculation and experimental predictions. Practical aspects, such as the modeling of finite accelerations, spin effects (via the Dirac action), and electromagnetic contributions (e.g., Aharonov–Bohm, synchrotron radiation), are discussed to evaluate the applicability of the results to ring interferometers and possible measurement protocols.

The **main results** show that (i) the sum of the proper time intervals along an infinite subdivision of the trajectory can **converge** to a finite value even

when the laboratory coordinate time diverges; (ii) the quantum phase associated with the world action is therefore **well-defined** and observable via interferometry, and (iii) the perception of the electron’s “freezing” by an external observer is a **relativistic illusion** resulting from time dilation and redshift in photon reception, not from a physical halt of the electron. The work concludes with proposals for extensions — including continuous modeling ($v(s)$), full inclusion of spin factors, and numerical simulations — and discusses how regularized summation techniques can provide useful physical interpretations for apparently divergent series. The article structure follows: Section 2 presents the idealized experiment and arc decomposition; Section 3 develops the calculation of dilation and quantum phase; Section 4 discusses electromagnetic and observational effects; Section 5 explores regularization via Ramanujan techniques; and Section 6 concludes with implications and future directions.

Technical Outline for the Proposed “Concrete Case”

A massive particle of mass m (e.g. an electron) travels twice around a closed loop, using an infinite subdivision of the path and convergent sums for both the proper time and the quantum phase.

1. Definition of the experiment and segmentation into arcs

- Let the total perimeter of the ring be S .
- We divide the complete path into infinitely many arcs of lengths

$$\Delta s_n = \frac{S}{2^n}, \quad n = 1, 2, 3, \dots \implies \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \Delta s_n = S.$$

- The particle starts at rest (or low velocity) and, in each segment n , reaches a constant velocity v_n such that

$$v_n = c(1 - \varepsilon_n), \quad \varepsilon_n > 0, \quad \varepsilon_n \rightarrow 0 \text{ as } n \rightarrow \infty.$$

For convergence, it suffices that ε_n decays slowly, e.g. $\varepsilon_n = 1/n^2$.

- We perform two identical laps, so the above S is repeated twice (total length $2S$).

2. Proper time for each segment

For each arc n , in the laboratory frame:

1. **Travel time in n :**

$$\Delta t_n = \frac{\Delta s_n}{v_n}.$$

2. **Lorentz factor:**

$$\gamma_n = \frac{1}{\sqrt{1 - (v_n/c)^2}} = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2\varepsilon_n - \varepsilon_n^2}} \approx \frac{1}{\sqrt{2\varepsilon_n}}.$$

3. **Proper time (particle’s own clock):**

$$\Delta \tau_n = \frac{\Delta t_n}{\gamma_n} = \frac{\Delta s_n}{v_n} \sqrt{1 - \frac{v_n^2}{c^2}} = \frac{\Delta s_n}{v_n \gamma_n} \sim \Delta s_n \sqrt{\frac{\varepsilon_n}{2}} \frac{1}{c}.$$

Since $\Delta s_n \propto 2^{-n}$ and typically $\sqrt{\varepsilon_n}$ decays polynomially, the series

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \Delta \tau_n$$

converges to a finite value τ_{total} . Even for two laps (adding another S), the total proper time remains finite.

3. Relativistic action and quantum phase accumulation

In the path integral formalism, each segment n contributes a worldline action

$$S_n = -mc^2 \int_n d\tau \approx -mc^2 \Delta \tau_n.$$

Therefore, the **total quantum phase** accumulated along the full trajectory is

$$\Phi = \frac{1}{\hbar} \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} S_n = -\frac{mc^2}{\hbar} \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \Delta \tau_n = -\frac{mc^2}{\hbar} \tau_{\text{total}}.$$

Since $\tau_{\text{total}} < \infty$, Φ is well-defined and finite.

4. Two-lap interference experiment

To reveal quantum effects, imagine a *beam splitter* separating the electron into two identical paths, each completing two laps, then recombined in a *ring interferometer*. The phase difference between Arm 1 and Arm 2 is

$$\Delta \Phi = \frac{1}{\hbar} (S_{\text{path 1}} - S_{\text{path 2}}).$$

If both traverse identical infinite arcs, in principle $\Delta \Phi = 0$. However, if we introduce:

- A small magnetic perturbation B in one arc,
- A localized potential $V(x)$ in some Δs_k ,

then

$$\Delta S = \int L_{\text{pert}} d\tau = q \int A_\mu dx^\mu \quad (\text{e.g. Aharonov–Bohm contribution}),$$

producing $\Delta \Phi \neq 0$ and a measurable interference pattern.

5. Technical convergence and conditions

1. **Choice of ε_n :** Ensure $\sum \Delta\tau_n < \infty$. For example, $\varepsilon_n = 1/n^p$ with $p > 1$ gives $\gamma_n \sim n^{p/2}$ and $\Delta\tau_n \sim 2^{-n}n^{p/2}$, which decays exponentially.
2. **Acceleration limit:** In reality, acceleration between segments must be finite — here we assumed instantaneous transitions for simplicity, but one can model a continuous $v(s)$ approaching c with $\int ds |dv/ds| < \infty$.
3. **Relativistic-quantum validity:** The above formalism combines classical relativistic time dilation with the quantum phase from the worldline action. For spin- $\frac{1}{2}$ particles, spinor factors (via the Dirac action) should be included.

Conclusion

This framework rigorously shows that:

- The *proper time* of a material observer on infinitely subdivided trajectories can be *finite* (convergent series).
- The *quantum phase* — proportional to the worldline action — is also finite and computable.
- In a ring interferometer, small perturbations produce *controllable interference patterns* directly linked to the infinite sums over each segment.

Possible extensions:

- Full modeling of continuous $v(s)$ and exact τ integration.
- Lagrangian/Hamiltonian formulation for spin fields (Dirac + EM).
- Numerical evaluation of τ_{total} and Φ for realistic parameters.

“Freezing” as a Relativistic Illusion

This “freezing” perceived by the external observer is purely an effect of time dilation and of signal reception (redshift), not an actual halt of the electron. We can see this clearly in the relativistic formalism:

1. Proper time dilation versus coordinate time

Let:

- τ be the *proper time* of the electron (its “internal clock”),
- t be the *time* measured by the external “static-quantum” observer.

They are related by the Lorentz factor:

$$t = \gamma \tau, \quad \gamma = \frac{1}{\sqrt{1 - v^2/c^2}}.$$

As $v \rightarrow c$, we have $\gamma \rightarrow \infty$. Therefore, for a finite interval $\Delta\tau$ of the electron’s proper time, the external observer measures:

$$\Delta t = \gamma \Delta\tau \longrightarrow \infty.$$

In other words, *each “tick” of the electron’s clock takes longer and longer to pass* for the lab observer — and, in the limit $v \rightarrow c$, it takes “infinitely” long (appearing “frozen”).

2. Redshift and signal reception

In addition to time dilation, there is an optical effect: all photons (or information packets) emitted by the electron experience redshift.

1. Observed frequency:

$$\nu_{\text{obs}} = \nu_{\text{emit}} \sqrt{\frac{1 - v/c}{1 + v/c}} \xrightarrow{v \rightarrow c} 0.$$

2. Intensity (photon flux):

This also falls to zero, as each photon arrives increasingly spaced in the observer’s time.

This reinforces the *illusion that the electron is “frozen”* — it continues along its trajectory, but sends signals that are increasingly diluted and slow.

3. Two electrons in two laps

In your thought experiment, there are two electrons traveling around the ring:

- Each undergoes the same sequence of accelerations $v_n \rightarrow c$.
- Both have $\gamma_n \rightarrow \infty$ as they approach the limiting point.

For the external observer, for both electrons:

- Photon emissions (or any interaction signals) become arbitrarily spaced in t .
- Visually, a *pair of “frozen” light points* appears in that sector of the ring, as if they had stopped there.

However, we emphasize:

There is no real deceleration nor “parking” of the electron — it is simply its *proper time* running increasingly slowly in the external frame.

4. Connection with convergent series

If we model this “limiting point” using the same division into segments Δs_n :

1. Each segment has $\Delta t_n = \gamma_n \Delta \tau_n$.
2. Even if $\sum \Delta \tau_n$ converges, $\sum \Delta t_n$ diverges when $\gamma_n \rightarrow \infty$.
3. Therefore, for the external observer, the total time to “reach” the limiting point is infinite — reinforcing the freezing effect.

Conclusion

- **For the electron:** finite total proper time (convergent series).
- **For the external observer:** coordinate time tends to infinity, signals increasingly redshifted — the impression of “freezing”.

This is the essence of the relativistic “optical illusion”: *continuous motion for the object itself, but apparent paralysis for the observer*.

Which Clock “Freezes” in Relativistic Motion

What “freezes” is the **clock of the moving object** — in this case, the electron’s clock — but **only when viewed from the frame of the external observer**.

1. From the laboratory (stationary) observer’s viewpoint:

- The electron moves faster and faster, its Lorentz factor γ increases, and

$$\Delta t_{\text{lab}} = \gamma \Delta \tau_{\text{el}} \longrightarrow \infty \text{ as } v \rightarrow c.$$

- Thus, each “tick” of the electron’s proper clock ($\Delta \tau_{\text{el}}$) takes an increasingly larger laboratory time Δt_{lab} to occur — and, in the limit $v \rightarrow c$, this clock advance *appears to stop*.

2. From the electron’s own (proper time) viewpoint:

- It always measures its own “ticks” normally:

$$\Delta \tau_{\text{el}} = \frac{\Delta t_{\text{lab}}}{\gamma} > 0 \text{ always, even for } v \rightarrow c.$$

- Therefore, **internally**, the electron’s clock **never stops** — it always runs at a rate of one second per proper second.

3. Reciprocity and acceleration:

- In non-accelerated, symmetric trajectories, each observer sees the other’s clock running slow.
- In your two-lap experiment, the electron is accelerated, breaking this symmetry: the electron’s frame is not inertial throughout the path. Thus, the clock that truly “freezes” in the physical sense is the **electron’s clock**, as seen from the fixed external frame.

Summary

- **Which clock freezes?** The clock of the body moving near c (the electron).

- **For whom does it freeze?** For the external observer at rest in the laboratory.
- **In the electron's own frame,** its clock runs normally, without stopping.

To “see” the electron at rest in two points of the ring

An external observer must, in some way, receive signals—photons—that have interacted with the electron at that instant. There are two main possibilities:

1. Synchrotron radiation from the accelerated electron

1. **Mandatory acceleration:** In an acceleration ring, the electron continuously changes direction, which means it is always accelerated (even if the magnitude of the velocity is “constant”).
2. **Photon emission (“synchrotron”):** Charged particles accelerated in magnetic fields emit electromagnetic radiation—called *synchrotron radiation*.
3. **Observation:**
 - Each synchrotron photon emitted carries information about the position and the instant at which it was generated.
 - As $v \rightarrow c$, the emission instants become increasingly spaced in the laboratory coordinate time t (extreme dilation), making it appear that these emissions “freeze” at the two limit points.
 - The external observer’s detector captures these photons: if they arrive almost statically from two fixed points, the visual impression is of two “stationary luminous points”.

2. Illumination by a probing beam (scattering)

If one does not want to rely on natural synchrotron radiation:

1. **Probing beam:** The external observer could fire light pulses (laser, X-rays, etc.) through the limit point of the ring.
2. **Scattering:** When this pulse encounters the electron, part of the light is scattered (or reflected) by the electron and returns to the detector.
3. **Return rate of the signals:**
 - For an electron very close to c , the interval dt between reflected pulses grows as $\gamma \Delta\tau$.
 - In the limit $v \rightarrow c$, these returns tend to become infinitely spaced, creating the same “freezing” illusion at the point.

In both cases

- It is not the electron “spontaneously emitting visible light”, but rather an interaction process (synchrotron radiation) or probing (scattering).
- What “freezes” is not the electron itself, but the *instants at which photons are emitted or reflected*—for laboratory time, these instants become increasingly dilated.
- Visually, the observer will see two fixed and faint points (since the photon flux decreases as $\nu_{\text{obs}} \rightarrow 0$), exactly where the electron’s v tends to c .

Thus, the “freezing” perceived by the external observer is a direct consequence of:

$$\Delta t_{\text{lab}} = \gamma \Delta \tau_{\text{el}} \xrightarrow[v \rightarrow c]{} \infty,$$

making the light signals increasingly rare and spaced.

Combined Relativistic, Electromagnetic, and Quantum Phenomena Analysis

What you suggest is to try to combine three layers of phenomena simultaneously:

1. **Relativity** (time dilation and signal delay),
2. **Electromagnetic radiation** (classical wave, synchrotron, Doppler),
3. **Quantum wave-particle duality** (wave function versus discrete detection).

Let us verify step by step what the external observer would actually “see”:

1 1. Trajectory and Signal Delay

For each point P on the orbit, the electron emits (or reflects) an electromagnetic signal at its proper time τ_P . This signal takes a time

$$t_{\text{prop}}(P) = \frac{R(P)}{c}$$

to reach the observer, where $R(P)$ is the distance from P to the detector. The reception time is then

$$t_{\text{obs}}(P) = t_{\text{emit}}(P) + \frac{R(P)}{c},$$

but, due to time dilation,

$$t_{\text{emit}}(P) = \gamma(\tau_P) \tau_P.$$

As $v(\tau_P) \rightarrow c$, $\gamma \rightarrow \infty$ and these $t_{\text{obs}}(P)$ for the “limit points” tend to infinity, causing the emissions from these points to become increasingly spaced in t_{obs} — this is where the “freezing” effect at two points arises.

2 2. Electromagnetic Wave Profile

Before reaching this limit, the detector receives a **continuous wave** (synchrotron radiation):

- The classical wave function $E(t)$ or $B(t)$ will be an almost periodic signal, but with:
 - **Envelope** that widens (emission becoming weaker), and
 - **Instantaneous frequency** undergoing extreme Doppler shift (tending to zero as $v \rightarrow c$).

This creates the impression that as the electron accelerates, the observed “wave”:

1. Has an increasingly longer period,
2. Shows decreasing amplitude,
3. Eventually appears to vanish (freezing point).

However, there is **no intrinsic transition** from “wave $\rightarrow$ discrete” in this signal — it remains the same radiation, merely becoming increasingly spaced in time.

3 3. Where Quantum Discreteness Enters

Quantization appears only at the moment of **detection**:

- The external detector only registers “clicks” from individual photons.
- While the electron emits incessantly (continuous wave), the detector “sees” discrete photon packets.
- These packets become increasingly rare as the electron approaches the limit, until, at the limit $v \rightarrow c$, they would arrive so spaced out that it would appear only two stationary emission points exist — at the two limit points.

But this **does not** mean that the wave has become intrinsically discrete or that the electron “split into two”. It is simply:

1. **The photodetector** only clicks when absorbing a photon (which is a point-like process).
2. **The infinite spacing** of emission times causes **only two clicks** — one from each limit point — to appear within any finite practical observation period.

4 4. There Is No “Image” of the Electron Itself

Finally, it is important to emphasize:

- The external observer **does not see the electron directly**, but only the radiation it emits (or scatters).
- At no point are there “two images” of the same electron — only two **potential emissions** that become concentrated at these limit points.

5 Summary of What the External Observer Records

1. **Before the limit:** A continuous synchrotron wave flux, with smoothly varying envelope and frequency.
2. **Near the limit:** This flux becomes increasingly sparse (time dilation $\rightarrow$ emissions growing farther apart).
3. **At the limit:** For any finite t_{obs} , only emissions from two points arrive, creating the illusion of two static “light points”.
4. **Quantum mechanically:** These light points correspond to point-like detections (photons) — the discreteness arises from the detection process, not from any fragmentation of the electron or the wave.

Therefore, there is **no moment** where the “continuous wave” transitions into “two discrete electrons”: one always has a wave combined with point-like detection, with the photon arrival pattern shaped by relativistic time dilation.

Clarification on Frozen Light Points in Relativistic Electron Motion

Exactly: those two “frozen light points” observed by the external observer are not two different electrons, but rather **two distinct events** on the same trajectory (world-line) of the electron, corresponding to the end of the first lap and the end of the second lap as v approaches c .

1 Modeling in Terms of Spacetime Events

1. Definition of Events

- Let E_1 be the event “electron reaches point A at the end of the first lap”, and
- E_2 be the event “electron reaches A at the end of the second lap”. Both occur at the same **spatial location** $x = A$, but at different **proper times** τ_1 and τ_2 (with $\tau_2 > \tau_1$).

2. Coordinates in the Laboratory Frame

Each event has coordinates

$$E_k : (t_k, x = A), \quad k = 1, 2$$

where

$$t_k = \sum_{n=1}^{N_k} \Delta t_n = \sum_{n=1}^{N_k} \gamma_n \Delta \tau_n, \quad N_1 = \infty \text{ (1st lap)}, \quad N_2 = 2\infty \text{ (2nd lap)}.$$

In the idealization $N_1, N_2 \rightarrow \infty$ (the limit $v_n \rightarrow c$), both t_1 and t_2 diverge, but before “infinitely late” the observer would have already received vestigial emissions from each lap.

3. Observer’s Perception

- **Before reaching E_1** : increasingly spaced signals, yet still identifiable as a “continuous synchrotron flux”.

- **Around E_1 :** a peak of nearly static emissions at A (the “first frozen point”).
- **Afterward, still before E_2 :** again a rarefied flux as the electron completes the second lap.
- **Around E_2 :** a second peak of nearly static emissions arises at the same location A (the “second frozen point”).

2 Why They Appear as “Distinct Trajectories” from the Detector’s Perspective

- **Same spatial trajectory:** both pass through A on the same circle.
- **Distinct temporal trajectory:** E_1 and E_2 have different emission times (first vs. second lap).
- **Emission series:** for each lap, the components $\Delta t_n = \gamma_n \Delta \tau_n$ form a series causing the observer to perceive a **signal accumulation** around E_1 and another around E_2 .

Therefore, the “two frozen electrons” are **two separate measurements** (two sets of emitted photons) of the **same electron**, at two **distinct events** along its world-line — the end of the first lap and the end of the second.

Ramanujan's Techniques for Divergent Series in Relativistic-Quantum Physics

Ramanujan worked extensively with **series**—**convergent and divergent**—and developed several tools that are now fundamental in theoretical physics problems, especially where **infinite sums that do not converge under the usual definition** appear but can be assigned “regular” values via analytic continuation. Three key ideas of his could be adapted to your context:

1 1. Divergent Series Summation (Ramanujan Summation)

In the relativistic-quantum experiment, we observe that

$$t_{\text{lab}} = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \Delta t_n$$

diverges when $\Delta t_n \sim \gamma_n \Delta \tau_n$ with $\gamma_n \rightarrow \infty$. Rather than simply labeling this sum as “infinite,” **we could apply a Ramanujan-style regularized sum:**

1. **Definition via Generating Function** Ramanujan associates a series $\sum a_n$ with a function $A(s) = \sum a_n n^{-s}$ (Dirichlet-type) and performs **analytic continuation** to $s = 0$.
2. **Ramanujan Sum Value** The “sum” is then defined as

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} a_n = A_{\text{cont}}(0).$$

Applied to our case, we might define

$$A(s) = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} (\gamma_n \Delta \tau_n) n^{-s},$$

and check whether analytic continuation as $s \rightarrow 0$ yields a finite value for the “renormalized” laboratory time.

This procedure already appears in particle physics (regularization of mode series in field theories), suggesting that **Ramanujan Summation** could provide a finite “effective time” even when $\gamma \rightarrow \infty$.

2. Transformation Formulas and Modular Series (Mock Theta Functions and Modular Forms)

Ramanujan discovered **mock theta functions**, which behave like “incomplete” modular forms. In relativistic-quantum physics:

- If we interpret the quantum phase summation $\Phi = -\frac{mc^2}{\hbar} \sum \Delta\tau_n$ as a **q-series** (with $q = e^{-\lambda}$, $\lambda \rightarrow 0$ as $\tau_n \rightarrow 0$),
- Then **modular properties** may reveal **hidden symmetries** when the electron completes multiple laps (analogous to the $q \rightarrow 1/q$ transformation).

This could suggest Poisson-Ramanujan relations that interchange “small” subdivisions n with “large” divisions $1/n$, explaining why signals cluster at the limit points.

3. Exact Asymptotic Formulas (Enhanced Euler–Maclaurin)

Ramanujan refined the **Euler–Maclaurin Formula** to obtain more precise asymptotic expansions of sums and integrals. In the continuous model:

$$t_{\text{lab}} = \int_0^S \frac{ds}{v(s)} + \sum_{k=1}^M \frac{B_{2k}}{(2k)!} \left[\frac{d^{2k-1}}{ds^{2k-1}} \frac{1}{v(s)} \right]_0^S + \dots$$

- The **Bernoulli coefficients** B_{2k} arise naturally, and
- A **Ramanujan-style treatment** corrects boundary terms to capture the exact deviation when $v(s) \rightarrow c$.

This would allow us to compute, instead of a simple divergent peak, **a more detailed profile** of how $t_{\text{obs}}(s)$ grows near the limits of each lap, including subdominant corrections relevant for ultra-high-precision experiments.

4. Practical Next Steps

1. **Select a divergent sum** (e.g., $\sum \gamma_n \Delta\tau_n$) and attempt to **construct its Dirichlet generating function** for Ramanujan Summation.

2. **Express the quantum phase** as a **q-series** and investigate potential **modular transformations** (inspired by mock theta functions).
3. **Apply high-order Euler–Maclaurin** to extract finite terms and compare with numerical simulations.

Detailed Application of Ramanujan Summation to Divergent Laboratory Time Series

Below, I will develop in detail the **Ramanujan Summation** applied to the divergent series of “laboratory times”

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \Delta t_n$$

and show how, via analytic continuation, we obtain a finite value that coincides with the classical time $2S/c$ for completing two laps at speed c .

1 1. Identification of the Divergent Series

For each segment n of length

$$\Delta s_n = \frac{S}{2^n},$$

and approximate velocity $v_n \approx c$ (in the limit of interest), the laboratory time is

$$\Delta t_n = \frac{\Delta s_n}{v_n} \approx \frac{S}{c} 2^{-n}.$$

The series

$$T = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \Delta t_n \approx \frac{S}{c} \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} 2^{-n}$$

is **convergent** under this truncation—but if we had a continuous profile causing $v(s) \rightarrow c$ sufficiently fast, the corresponding series could diverge. Nonetheless, to illustrate Ramanujan’s technique, we will treat it as the series

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} a_n, \quad a_n = \frac{S}{c} 2^{-n}.$$

2. Construction of the Dirichlet Generating Function

We define the **Dirichlet generating function**

$$A(s) = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} a_n n^{-s} = \frac{S}{c} \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{2^{-n}}{n^s} = \frac{S}{c} \text{Li}_s\left(\frac{1}{2}\right),$$

where $\text{Li}_s(z)$ is the *polylogarithm*.

3. Analytic Continuation as $s \rightarrow 0$

- The function $\text{Li}_s(z)$ admits analytic continuation for all s ,
- In particular,

$$\text{Li}_0(z) = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} z^n = \frac{z}{1-z}.$$

- Therefore, at $z = \frac{1}{2}$,

$$\text{Li}_0\left(\frac{1}{2}\right) = \frac{\frac{1}{2}}{1 - \frac{1}{2}} = 1.$$

Hence,

$$A(0) = \frac{S}{c} \text{Li}_0\left(\frac{1}{2}\right) = \frac{S}{c} \times 1 = \frac{S}{c}.$$

According to the **Ramanujan summation procedure**, we assign to the “divergent” sum $\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} a_n$ the value

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty R} a_n = A_{\text{cont}}(0) = \frac{S}{c}.$$

4. Physical Interpretation

- This regularized value $\frac{S}{c}$ is precisely the **classical time** required to complete **one lap** at speed c .
- In our **two-lap experiment**, we sum this contribution twice, obtaining the “Ramanujan time”

$$T_R = 2 \frac{S}{c},$$

which makes perfect physical sense: it is the time it would take traveling strictly at the limiting speed.

5 5. Comments on ε_n Corrections

If we wish to include the deviation $\varepsilon_n = 1/n^p$, such that

$$\Delta t_n = \frac{S}{2^n c} \frac{1}{1 - \varepsilon_n} = \frac{S}{c} 2^{-n} \left(1 + \varepsilon_n + \varepsilon_n^2 + \cdots \right),$$

then the generating function becomes a sum of **polylogarithms** of different orders:

$$A(s) = \frac{S}{c} \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{2^{-n}}{n^s} \varepsilon_n^k.$$

Each inner term resembles $\sum 2^{-n} n^{-s-pk}$, i.e., $\text{Li}_{s+pk}(\frac{1}{2})$. Analytic continuation as $s \rightarrow 0$ remains well-defined and systematically produces **finite corrections** to the Ramanujan time S/c .

This allows capturing **boundary effects** generated by the acceleration profile ε_n , while preserving the interpretation that the effective “total time” remains **regularized** around S/c per lap (and $2S/c$ for two laps).

6 6. Next Steps

1. If desired, we can **explicitly compute** the series expansion of $A(s)$ up to a certain order in ε_n and evaluate $A(0)$.
2. We can also numerically compare the “Ramanujan time” with the discrete simulation we performed.
3. Finally, it is worth extending this method to continuous divergent sums (via zeta regularization or Mellin transform) to handle the model with $v(s) \rightarrow c$ more accurately.

Specify your preferred direction:

- **Explicit calculation** of ε_n corrections,
- **Numerical comparison** of Ramanujan summation versus direct integration,
- Or **zeta-regularized extension** to the continuous model.